Changes in Students' Diplomatic Readiness After a Short Diplomacy Program: A Pilot Study of NextGen Diplomats in Uzbekistan

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Abstract

Few programs in Uzbekistan teach diplomacy to high school students, especially outside the capital. This pilot study describes how students changed during NextGen Diplomats, a free program of five workshops held in Jizzakh in February and March 2026. Each workshop combined a short lesson on diplomacy, economics, history, technology or strategic communication with a simulation. A one-group pre-test/post-test design was used: the same test was given at the start and at the end of the program, and 14 students in grades 8–11 completed both. The test measured knowledge (15 questions), choices in four diplomatic scenarios, written explanations of those choices, and self-rated confidence (10 statements). To reduce bias, four teachers marked all 152 written explanations without knowing who wrote them or when. Knowledge rose from 68% to 89% correct, total scores from 55% to 70%, and confidence from 4.05 to 4.65 out of 5, and all three changes were statistically significant. Written reasoning rose from 5.4 to 7.4 out of 16, but this change was not significant after correcting for testing several outcomes. The original, non-blind marking had made this gain look 47% bigger than it really was. Because there was no control group and the tests were not supervised, these results show changes after the program, not proof that the program caused them. They suggest that knowledge and confidence changed quickly, while reasoning needs more practice.

Keywords: diplomacy education, Model United Nations, simulations, high school students, pilot study, program evaluation, Uzbekistan

In Short

- **What was done:** Students from grades 8–11 joined five free workshops on diplomacy, economics, history, technology and communication, each with a simulation. Fourteen of them took the same test before and after the program.
- **What changed the most:** knowledge of diplomacy (68% to 89% correct answers) and confidence (4.05 to 4.65 out of 5).
- **What changed less:** explaining a decision in writing. Students used more diplomatic words, but few explained why their choice was better than other options.
- **Why fair marking matters:** when teachers marked the answers without knowing whose they were or when they were written, the improvement looked smaller than in the first marking.
- **The lesson:** new ideas can be learned quickly, but explaining and defending a decision takes more practice.

1. Introduction

In 2015, the United Nations Security Council recognized "the important and positive contribution of youth in efforts for the maintenance and promotion of peace and security" (United Nations Security Council, 2015). This means that young people are seen not only as learners about world affairs but also as participants in them. The OECD (2018) also says that schools should teach "global competence", which includes understanding global issues, understanding other people's perspectives, and communicating across differences.

This issue is particularly relevant in the Uzbek educational context. People under 30 make up about 60% of Uzbekistan's population (UNICEF Uzbekistan, n.d.), and Uzbek law defines youth as people aged 14 to under 30 and says young people should take part in carrying out youth policy (On the State Youth Policy, 2016). Since 2016, Uzbekistan has also become much more open and active in regional and international affairs

(Anceschi, 2019). However, in Jizzakh, as in many places outside the capital, high school students have few chances to study diplomacy in a structured way. This is not because of a lack of interest: when applications opened for a small pilot program in Jizzakh, 47 students applied within six days.

In January 2026, the author was one of 14 students from Uzbekistan's Presidential Schools, one from each region, selected for the study program "Young Minds for Global Futures" at the Italian Society for International Organization (SIOI) in Rome. The program taught international relations through history, economics, politics, technology and communication (Società Italiana per l'Organizzazione Internazionale [SIOI], 2026). After returning, the author created NextGen Diplomats for Global Futures to give students in Jizzakh a similar experience, and later wrote a guidebook so that other schools can run the program (Mukhamadov, 2026).

This study asks one question: **What changes in students' diplomatic readiness can be seen between the start and the end of the NextGen Diplomats program?** Diplomatic readiness is looked at in three parts:

1. **Knowledge:** understanding key ideas such as interests and positions, sanctions, alliances, and disinformation.
2. **Reasoning:** choosing a good action in a diplomatic situation and explaining why in writing.
3. **Confidence:** believing in one's ability to do diplomatic tasks, such as negotiating or speaking in public.

It was expected that all three would be higher at the end of the program than at the start.

2. Literature Review

2.1 Simulations and Model UN

Simulations are popular for teaching international relations because students learn by doing. Asal (2005) argued that games make abstract ideas, such as bargaining and cooperation, easier to understand because students experience them directly. Kolb's (1984) experiential learning theory explains why this can work: students have an experience, reflect on it, and then turn it into new understanding. These two ideas shaped the design of NextGen Diplomats: every workshop included a simulation, followed by a debrief in which students reflected on what had happened.

However, the evidence that simulations improve learning is limited. Raymond (2010) wrote that there is "a surprising lack of empirical evidence" for the classroom value of role-playing simulations, that their assessment "remains mostly anecdotal", and that some studies found little or no statistically significant improvement in students' academic performance (p. 51). Baranowski and Weir (2015) described three possible goals of simulations: improving learning, increasing engagement, and changing attitudes. They warned that "attitude change is not a reliable indicator of learning" (p. 393). For this reason, this study measured knowledge with an objective test and treated students' confidence ratings as a separate, weaker kind of evidence. Some studies that report benefits focus on skills and attitudes: Engel et al. (2017) argued that Model United Nations (MUN) can support deep learning among university students, and Levy (2018) found that taking part in a high school MUN club helped students feel more able to take part in politics. These studies suggest that knowledge, skills and confidence may change in different ways, so this study measured them separately.

2.2 Knowledge, Reasoning and Confidence

These three parts of diplomatic readiness may not change at the same speed. Learning new ideas can happen quickly, but reasoning develops more slowly. Kuhn (1991) interviewed people from their teenage years to late adulthood about everyday social problems, such as crime and unemployment, and found that many of them found it hard to support their views with real evidence or to think of other explanations. This is why the test asked students not only to choose an action but also to explain why, and why the marking rubric gave the highest marks to answers that weighed different options (Appendix B). Confidence matters because people who believe they can do something are more likely to try it (Bandura, 1997). However, confidence ratings before and after a program can be misleading, because people may rate themselves differently once they understand what a skill really involves (Howard, 1980). For this reason, the confidence results in this study are treated with caution.

2.3 The Gap

Most of this research is about university students in the United States, Europe or Australia. No studies were found on short diplomacy programs for high school students in Central Asia. There is also a problem with how such programs are often evaluated: when the people who run a program also mark its tests, the results can look better than they are. This study responds to these gaps in three ways: it studies high school students in Uzbekistan, it measures knowledge, reasoning and confidence separately, and it uses teachers who marked the written answers without knowing whose they were or when they were written.

3. The Program

NextGen Diplomats was free and took place at the Presidential School in Jizzakh from 22 February to 16 March 2026. It had five workshops, each led by an expert in that area (Table 1). Most workshops lasted two hours and followed the same plan: a short opening, about 40 minutes of teaching, a 50-minute simulation, and a 15-minute debrief (Mukhamadov, 2026). Workshop 4 was different: students joined a full-day event run by the IT Community of Uzbekistan, which organizes free technology events across the regions (IT Community of Uzbekistan, n.d.). The program ended with a question-and-answer session with Professor Emilio F. Iodice, a former U.S. diplomat and former director of Loyola University Chicago's John Felice Rome Center (LUISS Business School, n.d.).

Table 1. The five workshops

Workshop	Date	Facilitator	Main activity
1. Diplomacy and Negotiation	22 Feb	Azizbek Gaybullayev (principal)	Negotiation simulation with several countries
2. Economics in Global Affairs	28 Feb	Azizbek Gaybullayev (principal)	Negotiating an economic cooperation deal using trade, aid and targeted sanctions
3. History and World Order	1 Mar	Komiljon Urazov (history teacher)	"Council of the Ages": teams act as historical leaders facing today's world
4. Technology and AI in Geopolitics	7 Mar	Shavkat Karimov (IT Community of Uzbekistan) and guest speakers	Full-day event with talks on AI, cybersecurity and digital power
5. Strategic Communication	16 Mar	Ezra Nicolo P. Antonio (English teacher)	Teams represent countries and compete to build the biggest alliance

4. Methods

4.1 Design and Participants

This study used a one-group pre-test/post-test design: the same students took the same test at the start of the first workshop and after the last one. This design was chosen because NextGen Diplomats was a first, pilot cohort and every applicant was invited to join, so there was no similar group of students who did not take part and could be used for comparison. As a result, the study can describe how much students changed during the program, but it cannot prove that the program caused all of the change.

Forty-seven students applied and were invited, and 31 of them attended at least one workshop. Nineteen students took the pre-test, 19 took the post-test, and 14 took both. The analysis was limited to these 14 students, because a before-and-after comparison is only possible for students with both scores. The sample was small because this was a free, voluntary pilot program: attendance varied, and not every student who attended completed both tests. The five students who took only the pre-test had similar starting knowledge (10.6 vs 10.2 out of 15) but attended fewer workshops (2.0 vs 3.6), and the five who took only the post-test were also left out. The 14 students were in grades 8 to 11 (about 14 to 17 years old); nine were boys and five were girls.

Six came from specialized schools, five from the Presidential School in Jizzakh, two from academic lyceums and one from a public school. Most rated their English level as B2, only three had taken part in MUN before, and on average they attended 3.6 of the five workshops.

4.2 The Test

The program team wrote an online test that matched the five workshops (Appendix A). It had four parts:

1. **Confidence:** ten "I can…" statements rated from 1 (strongly disagree) to 5 (strongly agree), for example "I can deliver a clear 60-second argument in public".
2. **Knowledge:** 15 multiple-choice questions, three for each workshop (score 0–15).
3. **Scenario choices:** four short situations (a river dispute, sanctions that could hurt civilians, a rising power, and a fake video during a crisis), each with four options (score 0–4).
4. **Written reasoning:** after each scenario, students explained why they chose their answer (score 0–16).

The total score was knowledge + scenario choices + reasoning (out of 35). Confidence was analyzed separately because students rated themselves. The ten confidence questions worked well together as one scale (Cronbach's $\alpha = .85$ before and .87 after, on a scale from 0 to 1). The 15 knowledge questions were less consistent before the program (KR-20 = .65, a reliability score from 0 to 1) than after it (KR-20 = .83), so the knowledge test is only a moderately reliable measure, especially at the start. The test was not checked by outside experts before it was used.

4.3 Procedure and Data Cleaning

Students took the test on Google Forms. Most students took the pre-test together in the workshop room on 22 February 2026, at the start of Workshop 1 (one student took it on 28 February). The post-test was taken at home between 16 and 19 March 2026. Neither test was supervised like an exam, so students could have used notes, the internet or AI tools, especially at home. Students were not shown the correct answers after the pre-test. Most written answers after the program were still short (a median of 13.5 words), but outside help cannot be ruled out (see Section 7).

Before the analysis, the data were cleaned in four steps: the organizer's own test entry was removed; for two students who submitted a test twice, only the first submission was kept; three participant codes that had been typed wrongly were corrected by matching names; and all names were replaced with codes. The student who took the pre-test late was kept, but the analysis was repeated without this student, and the conclusions did not change.

4.4 Blind Marking

When the program team first marked the written answers, the markers knew which answers came from before and after the program, and the marking instructions for the pre-test said marks should be "deliberately conservative". This could make the improvement look bigger than it really was. Therefore, four teachers at the Presidential School in Jizzakh marked all 152 written answers again using a 0–4 rubric (Appendix B). Before marking, all names were removed, every answer was given a random code, and the before and after answers were mixed together, so the teachers could not know who wrote an answer or when. The four teachers were two English teachers, a Global Perspectives teacher, and a Global Politics and Economics teacher; one of them had led Workshop 5. Each answer's final mark was the average of the four teachers' marks.

The teachers did not always give the same mark to the same answer, which is normal for written answers: the marks of a single teacher were only moderately reliable (ICC = .64). However, the average of the four teachers' marks was much more reliable (ICC = .88 on a scale from 0 to 1, which counts as "good"; Koo & Li, 2016).

4.5 Analysis

Each student's scores before and after the program were compared with a paired *t*-test. Because the group was small and some of the score changes were not normally distributed (Shapiro–Wilk test), a second test that does not need a bell-shaped distribution, the Wilcoxon signed-rank test, was also used; both tests gave very similar results. Because five results were tested, the Holm correction (Holm, 1979) was applied, a stricter check that makes it harder to get a "significant" result just by luck. To show how big each change was, Cohen's *d* was calculated (Lakens, 2013): about 0.2 is a small change, 0.5 is medium and 0.8 or more is large. Two further

checks were made: the reasoning result was recalculated using each teacher's marks separately, and the written answers were checked with a keyword list (Appendix C) to count how many used diplomatic concepts, explained how an action would work, or compared options.

4.6 Ethics and Use of AI

When students applied, they agreed that their results could be used "only for research/reporting, without publishing your name". Because they are under 18, their parents also received an information sheet and a consent form. A school ethics panel of staff who were not involved in the program approved the study (reference PSJ-REC-2026-01), and the principal of the Presidential School in Jizzakh gave written permission to use the anonymous data. The study followed the British Educational Research Association's (BERA, 2024) ethical guidelines, and no names are used in this paper. Because the author created and led the program, three steps were taken to reduce bias: the multiple-choice questions were scored with an answer key, the written answers were marked blind by four teachers, and the main result was checked in several ways (Section 5.4).

The author used Claude, an AI assistant made by Anthropic, to help clean the data, prepare the blind-marking files, run the statistical tests and make the figures. Claude was also used to help draft the text from the author's notes, data and instructions, and to make the writing clearer, smoother and more consistent. The author checked all results against the original data, reviewed and edited the text, and takes full responsibility for the paper, following the Committee on Publication Ethics guidance on AI tools (COPE, 2023).

5. Results

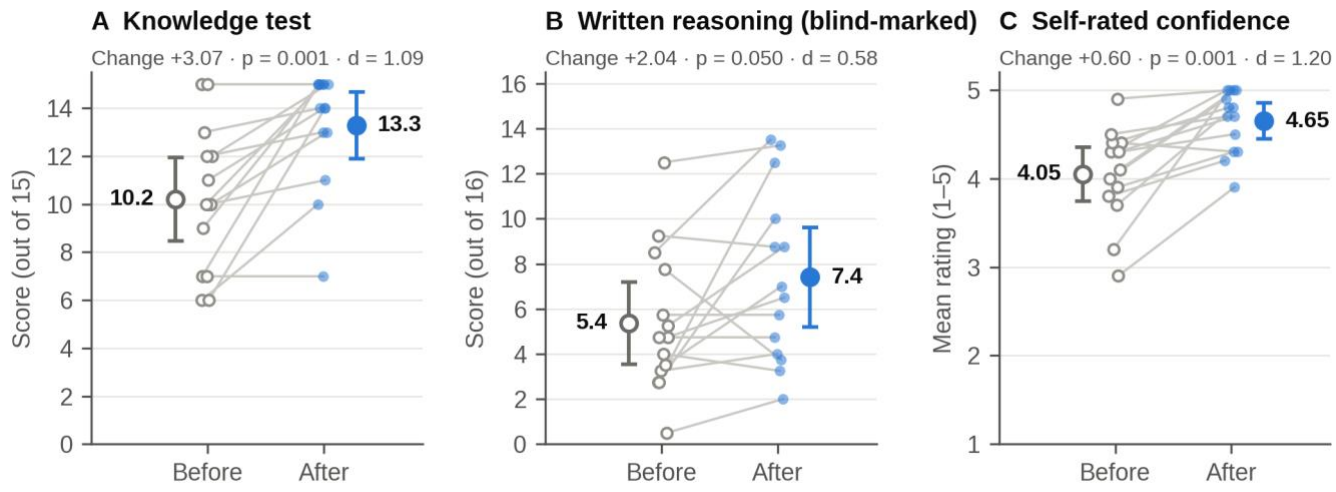
5.1 Main Results

Knowledge, total score and confidence all went up by a large amount, and these changes were unlikely to be due to chance alone, even with the stricter Holm check (Table 2, Figure 1). Written reasoning went up by about two points, a medium-sized change, but after the stricter check it was no longer statistically significant, so it may be partly due to chance. Total scores rose from 55% to 70%. Thirteen of the 14 students improved their total score, one stayed the same, and nobody went down.

Table 2. Scores before and after the program (14 students)

Outcome (max score)	**Before: mean (*SD*)**	**After: mean (*SD*)**	**Change**	***p* (*t*-test)**	***p* after Holm**	***p* (Wilcoxon)**	**Effect size *d***
Knowledge (15)	10.21 (3.02)	13.29 (2.40)	+3.07	.001	.005	.003	1.09
Scenario choices (4)	3.64 (0.63)	3.93 (0.27)	+0.29	.165	.165	.157	0.39
Written reasoning (16)	5.38 (3.16)	7.41 (3.82)	+2.04	.050	.101	.041	0.58
Total score (35)	19.23 (5.78)	24.63 (5.57)	+5.39	.003	.009	.001	0.97
Confidence (1–5)	4.05 (0.53)	4.65 (0.36)	+0.60	< .001	.003	.002	1.20

Note. Written reasoning is the sum of four answers, each averaged over four blind markers. *SD* shows how spread out the scores were. A *p* value below .05 means the change is unlikely to be just chance, and the Holm column is the stricter check. An effect size (*d*) of 0.8 or more is usually called large.

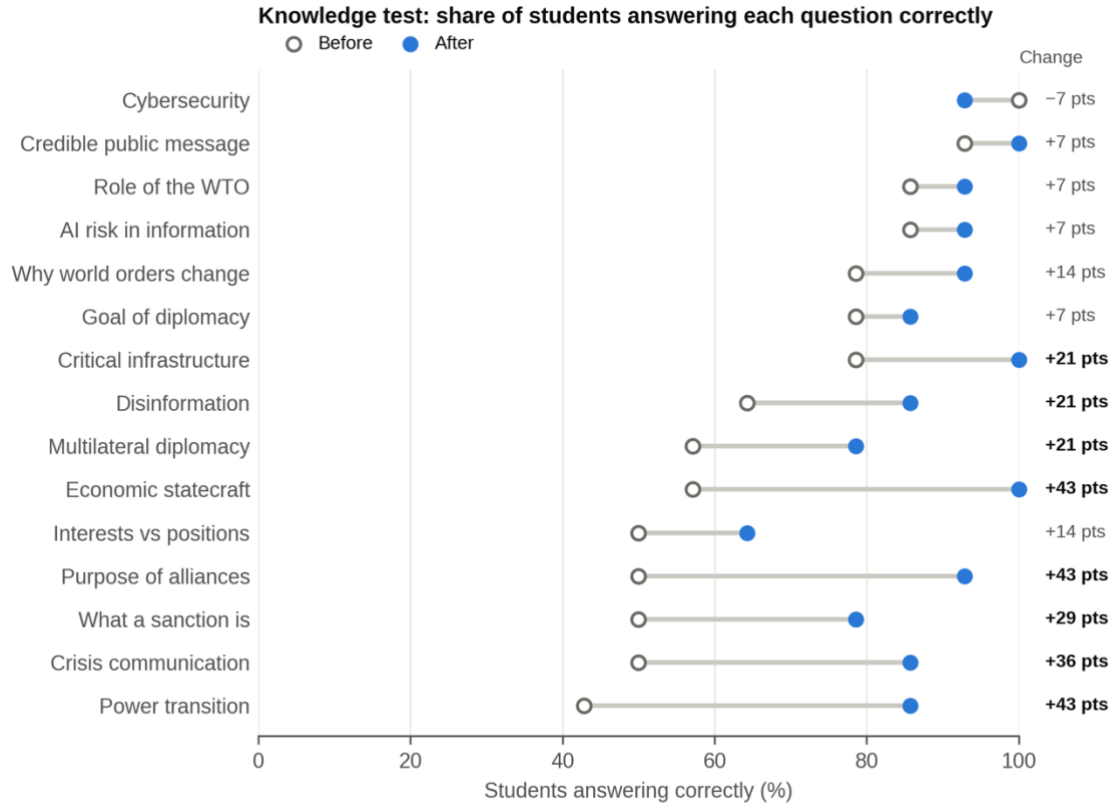


n = 14 students who completed both assessments. Grey lines = individual students; large markers = group mean with 95% confidence interval.
d = paired effect size (Cohen's dz). Reasoning scores are the mean of four blind markers.

Figure 1. Knowledge, written reasoning and confidence before and after the program. Grey lines show each student; the large markers show the group average, and the bars show the range where the true average probably lies (95% confidence interval).

5.2 Knowledge

Knowledge went up from 68% to 89% correct, and no student's knowledge score went down. The biggest improvements were on the ideas that students knew least at the start (Figure 2). Correct answers on power transitions, alliances and economic statecraft each went up by 43 percentage points. However, one important negotiation idea stayed weak: only 64% of students could tell the difference between a country's interests and its position after the program, up from 50%.



n = 14 matched students. Sorted from easiest to hardest before the program.

Figure 2. Percentage of students who answered each knowledge question correctly, before and after the program.

5.3 Scenario Choices and Written Reasoning

Most students already picked the best option before the program (91% of the time), so scenario choices could not improve much. The explanations improved more slowly. The average mark per answer rose from 1.34 to 1.85 out of 4, which means a typical answer moved from a vague reason toward a basic cause-and-effect explanation. The share of answers with an average mark of 2.5 or higher went up from 14% to 34%.

Table 3 shows what changed in the answers. After the program, almost twice as many answers used a diplomatic concept, such as de-escalation, targeted sanctions or verification. But answers that explained how the action would work, or compared it with other options, stayed rare.

Table 3. What changed in students' written answers (56 answers before, 56 after)

The answer…	**Before**	**After**
uses a diplomatic concept (e.g., interests, de-escalation, verification)	27%	52%
explains how the action would work	11%	27%
compares the action with another option or names a cost	5%	16%

Note. Features were found with the keyword list in Appendix C. Only the first increase was statistically significant ($p = .013$).

One student's answers show the change well. Before the program, a Grade 10 student explained the river choice with "Because the best way to solve the problem is to deal" (average mark 1.0). After the program, the same student wrote: "When countries dispute a shared river, the best first step is to create a joint technical commission and start talks. This allows them to share data, study the problem, and find fair solutions. Dialogue and cooperation reduce tension and prevent escalation, unlike sanctions or propaganda" (average mark 3.5). Not all answers changed this much, and because the post-test was done at home, it is not possible to know whether this answer was written without help. Answers also became longer (the median length went from 9 to 13.5 words), and longer answers usually got higher marks, so part of the improvement may come from students simply writing more.

5.4 Checking the Reasoning Result

The size of the reasoning gain was similar regardless of which teacher's marks were used: each teacher alone found a gain of between 1.7 and 2.4 points, and the two teachers with no role in the program found the same gain as all four together (+2.04). The original non-blind marking found a gain of 3.00 points, which is 47% bigger than the blind result. This shows why blind marking was important.

5.5 Confidence and Attendance

Confidence went up on all ten statements. The biggest gains were for giving a 60-second public argument (3.71 to 4.79) and writing a short policy proposal (3.29 to 4.29). Students felt confident that they could tell interests from positions (4.71 out of 5 after the program), even though only 64% answered that question correctly. Students who came to more workshops did not improve more than those who came to fewer (there was almost no link: Spearman $\rho = -.06$, $p = .84$), but with only 14 students this result is uncertain.

6. Discussion

By the end of the program, students' knowledge and confidence were clearly higher than at the start, while their ability to explain decisions in writing changed less. This pattern fits the idea that new knowledge can grow quickly, while reasoning takes longer (Kuhn, 1991).

Knowledge grew the most where it was weakest. The biggest gains were on ideas that were central to the simulations, like alliances and economic statecraft. This fits the idea that students understand concepts better when they use them in an activity and then reflect on them (Kolb, 1984). However, these gains should be read with caution: students answered the same questions twice, and they did the post-test at home without supervision, so some of the gain may come from remembering the questions or from outside help. The interests-versus-positions idea was taught mostly in Workshop 1, weeks before the post-test, so it might need to be repeated in later workshops.

Reasoning grew slowly. Students started using diplomatic words much more, but most still did not explain how their action would work or why it was better than other options. In the program's simulations, students mostly negotiated by talking in groups instead of writing down and defending a decision on their own, which may explain why their written reasoning changed less.

Blind marking made a big difference. The original marking made the reasoning gain look 47% bigger. This is an important lesson for students and teachers who evaluate their own programs: if possible, written answers should be marked by people who do not know when they were written.

The effect sizes should be read carefully. Effects of around $d = 1$ look very large, but Kraft (2020) explains that effects from studies without a control group are usually much bigger than effects from controlled experiments. Therefore, these numbers describe how much students changed, not how much of that change was caused by the program.

What this means for young people in policymaking. High school students, most of them without any MUN experience, showed clear gains in the basic vocabulary of diplomacy within about four weeks, and a program organized by a student was followed by measurable changes. This supports the idea that young people can be prepared to take part in international affairs (OECD, 2018; United Nations Security Council, 2015). But taking part well also needs the ability to defend a position and compare options, which was the hardest skill for students to improve.

Based on these results, four changes are planned for the program and the guidebook:

1. At the end of each simulation, ask every student to write a short answer: what they would do, how it would work, what would happen next, and why it is better than another option.
2. Repeat the difference between interests and positions in every workshop, not just the first one.
3. Supervise both the pre-test and the post-test, so that the results are more reliable.
4. Always have written answers marked blind by at least two teachers who did not teach the program.

7. Limitations

1. There was no control group, so it cannot be confirmed that the changes were caused by the program rather than by other things, such as regular school lessons or other activities during the same four weeks.
2. Only 14 students took both tests, all from one city, and they chose to join the program, so they were probably more motivated than most students. With 14 students, the study could only reliably detect large effects (about $d = 0.8$ or larger), so smaller real changes may have been missed.
3. Neither test was supervised like an exam, and the post-test was done at home, so students could have used notes, the internet or AI tools. This matters most for the knowledge questions, which were multiple choice.
4. Students answered the same questions twice, so some of the gain may come from remembering the questions. Many students already scored high on the scenario choices before the program, so there was little room to improve (a ceiling effect). Students who started with the lowest scores gained the most, which is partly expected statistically (regression to the mean).
5. The test was written by the program team and was not checked by outside experts before it was used, and the knowledge questions were only moderately reliable before the program (KR-20 = .65). All answers were written in English, which is a second language for every student, so some students may have known more than they could express.
6. Longer written answers tended to receive higher marks, and answers were longer after the program, so part of the reasoning gain may reflect longer rather than better answers.
7. The workshops were taught by experts, so the results may be different when a regular teacher uses the guidebook. The author also created and led the program, which could cause bias, although an answer key and blind marking were used to reduce it.

8. Conclusion

This pilot study looked at how students changed during the five NextGen Diplomats workshops. Among the 14 students who took both tests, knowledge rose from 68% to 89%, total scores from 55% to 70%, and confidence from 4.05 to 4.65 out of 5. Written reasoning also improved, but less, and blind marking showed that the original marking had made this improvement look bigger than it was. Because there was no control group, the tests were not supervised and the sample was small, these results describe changes after the program rather than prove its effect. The next step is to test the guidebook in other schools and regions, with regular teachers, a supervised and expert-checked test, and a comparison group.

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Appendix A. The Test

The same test was used before and after the program. **Confidence statements** (1 = strongly disagree, 5 = strongly agree), "I can…": (1) explain what diplomacy is and why states use it; (2) negotiate a solution when people strongly disagree; (3) distinguish a country's position from its interests; (4) understand how trade or sanctions can influence foreign policy; (5) explain how history shapes today's international system; (6) identify key risks of AI and misinformation in global affairs; (7) evaluate whether a news claim is reliable; (8) deliver a clear 60-second argument in public; (9) write a short policy proposal with realistic steps; (10) collaborate with others to reach agreement under time pressure.

Table A1. Knowledge questions and correct answers

#	**Question**	**Correct answer**
1	The primary goal of diplomacy is to:	Advance interests peacefully
2	In negotiation, a country's "interests" are:	Drivers behind a stance
3	"Multilateral diplomacy" is:	Talks among many actors
4	A sanction is:	Restriction to pressure change
5	Economic statecraft means:	Economic tools for influence
6	The WTO mainly deals with:	Trade rules and disputes
7	A "power transition" is when:	Rising power challenges leader
8	Alliances are usually formed to:	Mutual defense and deterrence
9	World orders change mainly because:	Power, technology and ideas shift
10	"Cybersecurity" is:	Protecting systems and data
11	A key AI risk in information is that it:	Generates believable fake media
12	"Critical infrastructure" includes:	Power, banking and communications networks
13	Disinformation is:	Intentional spread of falsehoods
14	A credible public message should have:	Claim, evidence and clear logic
15	In a crisis, best practice is to give:	Verified facts and regular updates

Table A2. Scenarios and best options

#	**Scenario**	**Best option**
1	Two countries dispute water usage in a shared river. Tensions rise. What is the best first step?	Create a joint technical commission and start talks
2	A country considers sanctions, but it might harm ordinary citizens. What is the most responsible approach?	Targeted sanctions with humanitarian exceptions
3	A rising power is increasing influence in a region. What historical lesson is most useful?	Manage competition through alliances and dialogue
4	A fake video spreads online during a crisis. What should officials do first?	Verify sources and issue a clear correction with evidence

Note. After each scenario, students answered: "Why did you choose your answer?"

Appendix B. Marking Rubric

Table B1. Marking rubric for the written answers

Mark	Level	Description
0	No reasoning	Blank, only repeats the option, “best answer”, “gut feeling”, “I don’t know”, or not related to the scenario
1	Vague reason	A general reason that does not explain how or why the choice works
2	Basic explanation	At least one clear cause-and-effect link that fits the scenario
3	Well reasoned	Clear cause and effect plus a relevant concept (e.g., interests, de-escalation, targeted sanctions, verification) or an explanation of why another option is worse
4	Excellent	All of level 3, plus it weighs trade-offs between options or gives a real-world or historical example

Note. Teachers were told to mark reasoning only, not grammar, spelling or length.

Appendix C. Keyword List

Keywords were matched without regard to capital letters, and each answer was counted once per feature.

Table C1. Keywords used to find features in the answers

Feature	Example keywords and phrases
Diplomatic concept	interests, de-escalation, escalation, targeted sanctions, humanitarian, civilians, legitimacy, verify, evidence, credibility, trust, balance of power, alliance, deterrence, negotiation, diplomacy, misinformation, disinformation, data, commission, cooperation, stability
Explains how it works	so that, therefore, which would, this allows, this reduces, this prevents, it ensures, helps to prevent, leads to, results in, in order to, by + verb-ing
Compares options or names a cost	instead, rather than, unlike, whereas, on the other hand, otherwise, backfire, could make it worse, without harming, other options would